

Eng512 Final

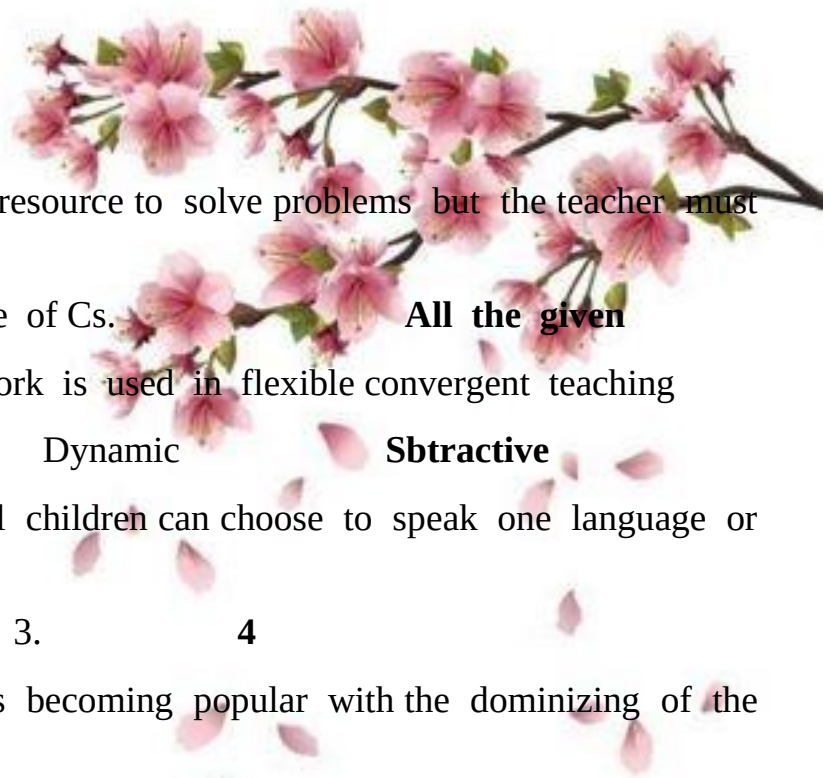
Compilation



Objectives

1. **Co-linguaging** is also used when the history teacher shows a video document in one and subtitle in another.
2. **Social linguistic** is important principle for equity between languages and cultural background to be recognized as knower.
3. Mother tongue = Vernacular **UN**.
4. **Immersion bilingualism** began with 100% use of majot majority child's second language.
5. In philipines the gist of the lesson in Filipino or **ENGLISH**
6. Standardization is not an **inherent** characteristic of language.
7. CS stands for (**Code Switching**)
8. BICS stands for (**Basic Interpersonal Communication skill**)
9. In an autonomous region of **Italy** bilingual education for all was introduced at at Kindergarten in 1983.
10. In fifth grade dual-language classroom in US, children learn social studies in **Spanish**

Man From Nowhere



11. Code switching can be a resource to solve problems but the teacher must monitor the.....

Quantity. Quality Use of Cs. **All the given**

12. Which theoretical framework is used in flexible convergent teaching

Additive Recursive. Dynamic **Sbtractive**

13. at which age the bilingual children can choose to speak one language or other language

1 year 2 3. 4

14. in US,..... the language is becoming popular with the dominizing of the term bilingualism

Standard First French **Heritage**

15. Bilinguals have a high degree of..... Control over various language simultaneously

Cognitive Imaginary. Behavioral

16. which of the following was a reaction to immersion program

Monolingualism **Bilingualism** Structuralism Socialism

17. which of the following theoretical framework is used in immersion model

Sbtractive **Additive.** Captive

18. bilinguals have..... Metalinguistic skill

Lower **High** Norml

19. the term relates to sounds of a language

Semantic. **Phonology** Syntax

20. transnationalization means belonging to different

Culture. Families **Nationalities** Races

21. most often, bilingual.... Schools use subject determined arrangement

Secondary Private Primary

23. charter for regional and minorities lang was in the favor of

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Image creation

Inequality .

Insecurity

24. CLIC STAND FORbased lang learning

Context

Content

Culture

25. flexible bilingual arrangement use d/f b/w

Content

Subject.

Shift .

Natives

26. which is not an advantage of translanguaging

Surface understand

Cast Competence in weaker lang Home-school

co-operation

mixing of speakers Integration

27. to show a video documentary in one lang with subtitles in other lang is an example of

Code switching

Co-langaging

28. translanguaging can be a /an

Translation

Indirect translation

Translanguaging Languageing Gist of speech

All

29. when you teach according to cognitive approach, your focus is on the Behavior **strategies**

30. IRE stand for

Initiation response evalution.

Intermission response elevation

Interlinked relationship evaluation.

Intercontinental recipe evaluation

31. It has been noticed that over almost 3 generations lang shift is observed in Communities

Indigenous

Ethnic

Native

Immigrant

32. bilingualism education program which are built on translanguaging practice ensure the..... Interrelationship of the lang

Domestic

Formal

Situational

functional

33. which model is used in flexible convergent teaching?

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Convergent Immersion. Multiple Plurilingual

34. which type of learning tells us 'when' and 'where' to apply the knowledge that learners have

Declarative. **Procedural** Conditional None of these

35. most importantly, we need deciding about the suitability of the switching method in a classrom by looking at..... Needs

Learner's Teachers. Planners Groups

36. in bilingualism education a part of the curriculum is reserved for bringing two langs together for

Contrastive Similarities **Thematic** Copying

37. which of the following can cause the language death
plurilingualism dynamic bilingualism.

subtractive bilingualism Additive bilingualism

38. revitalization moves towards the ----- use of the language

fake new **ancient** mixed

39. which of the following languages is used for writing in Mali education system

French **English**

40. which of the following is NOT true for too much code switching

disengaging the learner over lay on one language

confusing the terms delaying in learning

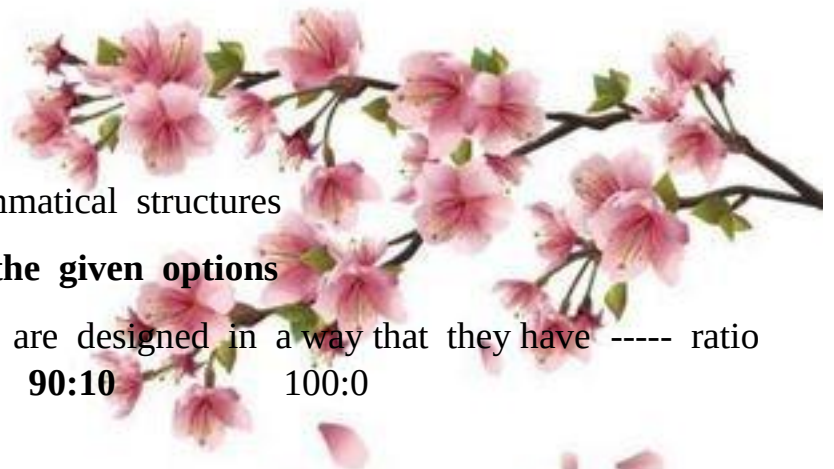
41. in co-languaging the medium of instruction can be decided by the -----
language domestic ancient official. **native**

42. translanguaging is about ----- and blending

mixing bending. bounding

43. the focus of grammar approach is an -----

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grammar teaching. grammatical structures

explicit instruction. **all the given options**

44. usually bilingual programs are designed in a way that they have ----- ratio of languages 80:20 **90:10** 100:0

45. Similingualism is a/an

Law Norm. Assumption. **Flaw**

47. creoles are said to be lexically and structually

Simple **Complex** Fuzzy

48. bilinguals havemetalinguistics skills

Lower Normal **Higher.** Zero Identical

49. when the mother tongue is standardized it is announced as a/an Language. **Official** Second Communicative Formal

50. transnationalism means belonging to the different Families

Culture **Nationalities** Races

51. flexible bilingual arrangement uses different.....

Context Subject. **Shifts.** Natives

52. code switching is.... In flexible multiplicity

Prohibited Accepted. **Discouraged**(actual word bad planned)guess

53. which of the following is not an advantage of translanguaging

Surface understanding. Competence in weaker lang

Home-scool co operate Mixing of speaker

54. Mostly invisible bilingualism is observed in hospital?

Cinemas **schools** hospitals hotels

55. Translanguaging happens through

language Shift. Language death. **borrowing** sharing

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56. Which discuss the fluences and changes occurring in the use of two languages? Subtractive **bilingualism.** paralingualism

57. Language shift ultimately shift to the **Death** diversity revitalization. barrier

58. Place-determined separation used in the German Spanish US. **Europe**

59. Most often, place-determined separation is done in conjunction with an arrangement that is determined.

Teacher. subject space time.

60. when you teach according to the cognitive approach your focus is on grades behavior **strategies** context

61. Which of the following is not true for social justice?

language tolerance Equity **Group work** assessment

62. equal cultural and linguistic space for all relates to social injustice **Justice.** hierarchy practice

63. language dominance is a -----

psychological construct. **sociological issues**

traditional norms. financial problem

64. in a pedagogy, code switching offers.....

Scaffolding Lang use Methodology

65. Language codes are

Secure static equal **complex**

66. According to Cumminsin academic language practice is essential

Social Curticulum medium of instruction

67. Linguistic hierarchies are imposed in

Plurilinsuam Feminism. **Linguicism**

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68. Technology-enabled communication facilities ...language Practice

High Low Simple **Complex**

69. Code switching respond to **external** cues

70. Formal learning content

Home **School** market. radio

71. Not true for adult bilingualism

Different path way No age related. Aquisition. **L2 encouragement**

72. The process of language policyinteraction linear

73. 100 percent use of children second language at time beginning of instruction
(Immersion bilingual education)

74. Co language the medium of instruction can be decided by language

Office domestic native ancient

75. Translation means to use exactly the sameof the language that convey

Pronoun **Vocabulary**

76. Purpose of translanguaging

Preciness Strict Variability **Understanding**

SUBJECTIVE:



Q. Status Planning: (3)

Status planning wants to change the way a language is used. It is about making some languages (or dialects) official languages for a territory. Very often, part of status planning is creating a writing system for a language that was only spoken before.

- Modifying the status or prestige of the language.



- Ascribing functions in the working of the government.
- Institutional Work
- Education

Q. Corpus Planning.

Changing the form of the language itself through standardization (standardizing language forms), graphization (developing a writing system), modernization (coining new words and terms). Corpus planning creates new words, expressions or changes old ones to have a new meaning. Corpus planning is involved with creating standards for a language, such as spelling and grammar, or to create dictionaries. Linguistic purity is about avoiding foreign influences to a language because they are seen as bad. It also belongs to corpus planning

Q. Note on the dimensions of language policy (LP) enterprise .

Focused on the linguistic dimension, the three dimensions of the language policy (LP) enterprise are:

1. Corpus planning: Changing the form of the language itself through standardization (standardizing language forms), graphization (developing a writing system), modernization (coining new words and terms)

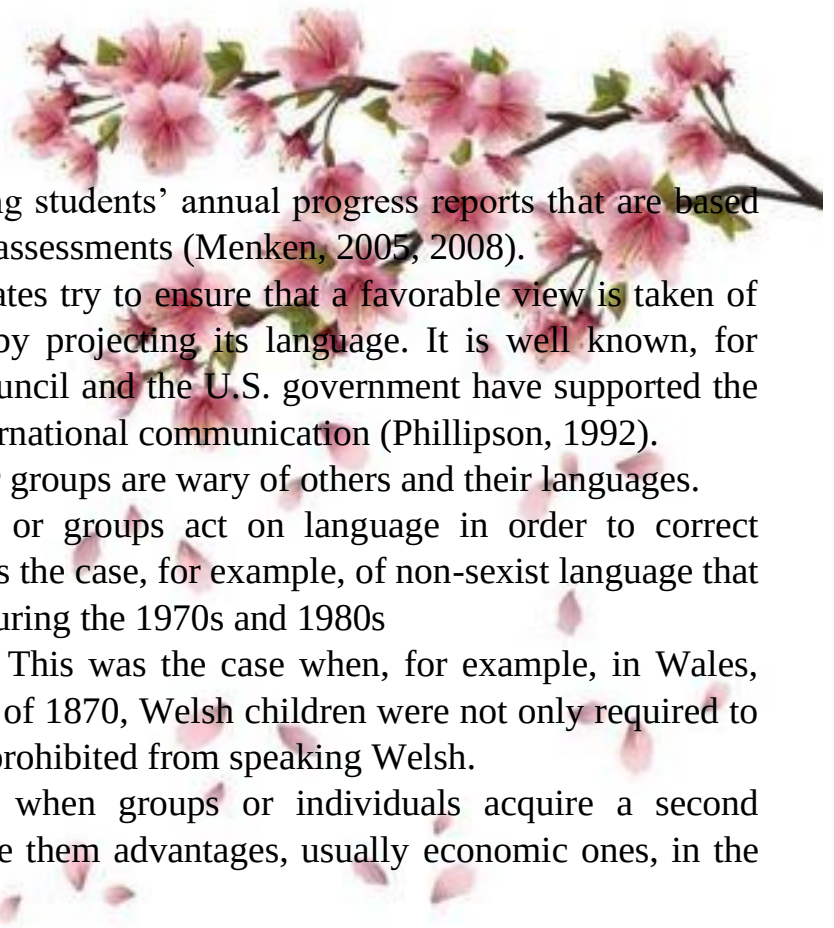
2. Status planning: Modifying the status and prestige of the language

3. Acquisition planning: Developing new users of the language. Acquisition planning is especially relevant to those of us interested in bilingual education because school is the most important agent in acquisition planning

Q: Goals of Ager 2001 OR What is language policy goals.

Ager (2001) discusses seven goals of language policy:

1. **Identity**, as when states impose certain languages as a link to specific identities. For example, France has maintained that it is a perfect hexagon and that only French is tied to French identity, thus silencing, until very recently, the other languages of France – Basque, Breton, Catalan, Corsican, Flemish, German, and Occitan.
2. **Ideology**, as when states or groups impose different languages or standards as a result of an ideology. An example is the United States' recent federal law, No



Child Left Behind, mandating students' annual progress reports that are based on written Standard English assessments (Menken, 2005, 2008).

3. **Image creation**, as when states try to ensure that a favorable view is taken of their history and language by projecting its language. It is well known, for example, that the British Council and the U.S. government have supported the greater use of English in international communication (Phillipson, 1992).
4. **Insecurity**, as when states or groups are wary of others and their languages.
5. **Inequality**, as when states or groups act on language in order to correct inequalities in society. This is the case, for example, of non-sexist language that came to be used especially during the 1970s and 1980s
6. **Integration with a group**. This was the case when, for example, in Wales, following the Education Act of 1870, Welsh children were not only required to learn English in school, but prohibited from speaking Welsh.
7. **Instrumental motives**, as when groups or individuals acquire a second language because it will give them advantages, usually economic ones, in the market or in careers

Q. Construction of hybrid identities also rests on.

Postcolonial identity involves not only “sameness” but by extension “otherness” and the development of hybrid identities which involve plural language practices. Hybrid identities are, as Holt and Gubbins (2002: 4) say “an attempt to link or acknowledge the past in the light of a different cultural environment rather than a mark of disloyalty.” The construction of these multiple and hybrid identities rest on multiple factors beyond language, such as race, social class, age, generation, sexual orientation, geopolitical situation, and institutional affiliation (Bhabha, 1990; Pavlenko and Blackledge, 2004).

1. Race
2. Ethnicity
3. Social class
4. Gender
5. Age
6. Geopolitical situations



7. Institutional affiliation

Q. Factors beyond language. (3)

Multiple factors beyond language, such as race, social class, age, generation, sexual orientation, geopolitical situation, and institutional affiliation (Bhabha, 1990; Pavlenko and Blackledge, 2004).

Q. language ideologie.

Language ideologies represent the cultural system of ideas about social and linguistic relationships, in addition to political and moral interests. Attitudes, values, and beliefs about language are always ideological, and are enmeshed in social systems of domination and subordination of groups, relating to ethnicity, class, and gender. One of the most popular ideologies is precisely that there is, or that there has to be, a link between language and identity, but it is important to recognize that this is a result of the homogenizing work of school in imposing a national standard. This is linked to Bourdieu's concept of linguistic practices as symbolic capital. This symbolic capital is distributed unevenly in the speech community, and as such, there is symbolic violence because the dominant ideas are naturally assumed and the oppressed recognizes the dominant group as superior

Q. what do know about language beliefs

Language beliefs or ideology:

- About language
- About language use
- Ideologies

The interactive way in which language is planned (or unplanned) and dictated from the top down, and the ways in which it is interpreted, negotiated (or planned) from the bottom up makes it impossible to differentiate between one level and the other and language beliefs and ideology interact with the two levels.

Q. Explain GIDS?

In Fishman's Graded Intergenerational Disruption Scale (GIDS) (1991), the higher the score, the lower the language maintenance prospects of a group. The GIDS provides a way by which ethnolinguistic groups can assess the threatened state of



their languages (X) and mobilize resources on their behalf; Stage 8: X spoken by socially isolated old folks;

Stage 7: X spoken by socially integrated and ethno-linguistically active, but beyond child-bearing age;

Stage 6: X is normal language of informal spoken interaction between and within all three generations of family, With Y reserved for greater formality and technicality than those common in daily family life;

Stage 5: X is also used for literacy in home, school, and community, but such literacy is not reinforced extra communally.

Stage 4: X is used in lower education that meets requirements of compulsory education laws; Stage 3: X is used in lower work sphere, outside of the community, and involving interaction between both speech communities;

Stage 2: X is used in lower governmental services and mass media, but not higher levels;

Stage 1: X is used in higher level educational, occupational, governmental, and media efforts.

Q. Language shift. (3)

Fishman (1968) argues that “The study of language maintenance and language shift is concerned with the relationship between change (or stability) in language usage patterns on the one hand, and ongoing psychological, social or cultural processes, on the other hand, in populations that utilize more than one speech variety for intra-group or for inter-group purposes.” Language shift or maintenance does not happen in a vacuum, it occurs only when certain societal conditions are present:

1. Co-existence of more than one language – bilingualism;
2. Differences in power, value, and status conferred on each of the two languages that lead the group to maintain or abandon the home language;
3. Pressure in political, economic, or social forms from one of the two language groups.

Q. Language and identity

Language, as constructed, is not only a simple identity marker, but is capable of generating imagined communities and of constructing particular loyalties



(Anderson, 1983: 133). Language, then, has much more than a semiotic and symbolic function; it also has a rhetorical function, used to discursively construct identity and solidarity. There is a reciprocal role between language and identity; that is, language use influences the identity formation of the group, while at the same time, the identity of the group influences the patterns of attitudes and language uses. Individual and social identity are mediated by language with speakers creating speech acts as acts of projection in which “the individual creates for himself the patterns of his linguistic behaviour so as to resemble those of the group or groups with which from time to time he wishes to be identified, or so as to be unlike those from whom he wishes to be distinguished. Postcolonial identity involves not only “sameness” but by extension “otherness” and the development of hybrid identities which involve plural language practices. Hybrid identities are, as Holt and Gubbins (2002: 4) say “an attempt to link or acknowledge the past in the light of a different cultural environment rather than a mark of disloyalty.” The construction of these multiple and hybrid identities rest on multiple factors beyond language, such as race, social class, age, generation, sexual orientation, geopolitical situation, and institutional affiliation (Bhabha, 1990; Pavlenko and Blackledge, 2004).

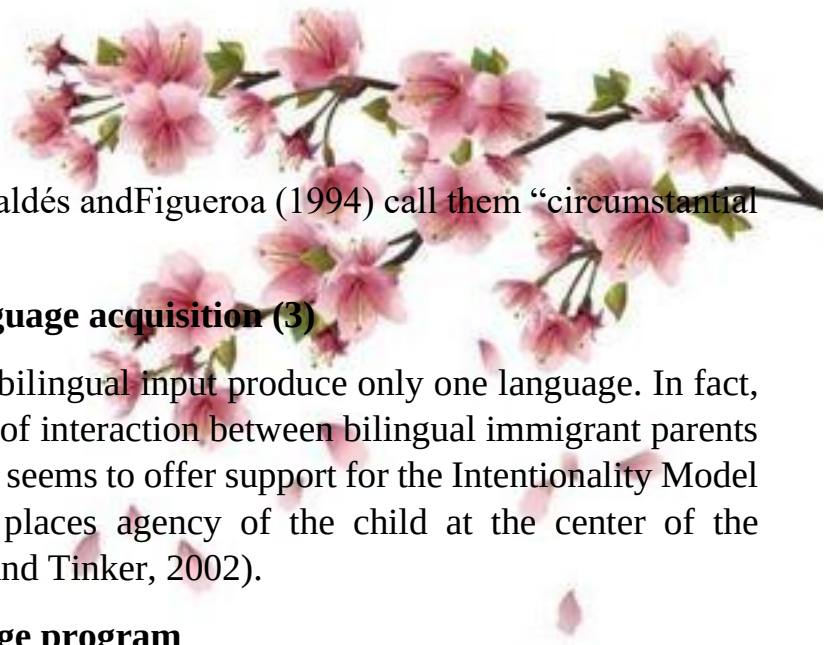
Q. Elective bilingualism or language by choice or three characteristics of elective bilingualism.

Some individuals choose to develop bilingual abilities, often the result of studying the language in school or through personal effort. That is, their bilingualism is optional. This type of bilingual has been referred to as “elite bilingual” by Fishman (1977b) and “elective bilingual” by Valdés and Figueroa (1994). In elective bilingualism Bilingual Development may be a choice:

- Learnt at schools or language centers.
- Elective or elite bilingualism (Fishman 1977)
- Formal learning-high status

Q. Elective Vs. Obligatory Bilingualism

Elective Bilingualism: (check previous question) Obligatory Bilingualism: Other individuals are forced to develop bilingual abilities. That is, their bilingualism is obligatory. For example, immigrants, indigenous peoples, and minorities who are forced to learn and use only language practices that are not those of the home. Hence,



they are obligatory bilinguals. Valdés and Figueroa (1994) call them “circumstantial bilinguals.”

Q: Intentionality model of language acquisition (3)

Some children growing up with bilingual input produce only one language. In fact, this is the most common pattern of interaction between bilingual immigrant parents and their bilingual children. This seems to offer support for the Intentionality Model for Language Acquisition that places agency of the child at the center of the developmental process (Bloom and Tinker, 2002).

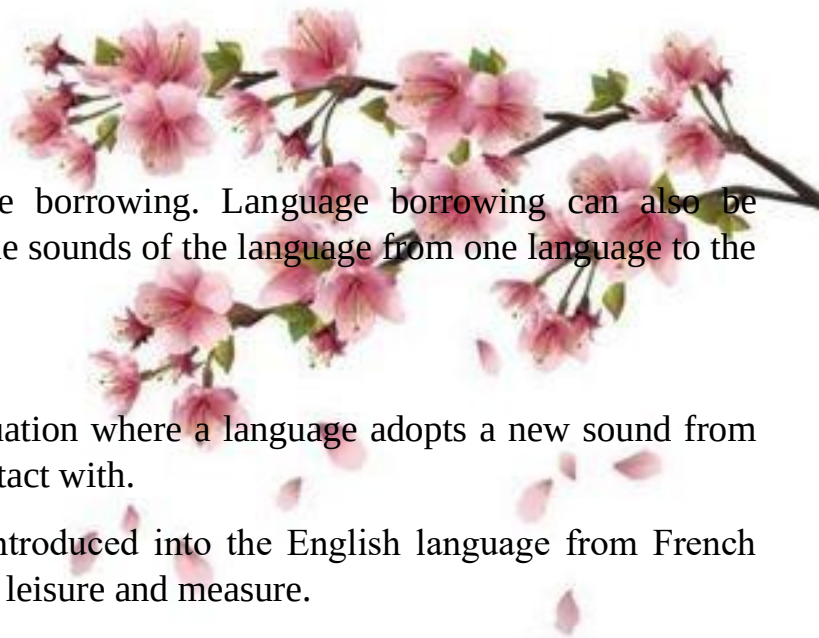
Q: Purpose of students exchange program

Many adolescents who immigrate become bilingual through participation with their peers and through schooling. Adults also can develop bilingual fluency and biliteracy fluency, and reach high levels of competence when they study a second language in a well-designed educational program (Rivera and Huerta-Macías, 2008). The European Commission introduced Erasmus, an exchange program that encourages university students from different European countries to study for part of their degree in a different language in another country. This has now been extended to other parts of the globe under the name Erasmus-World. Tribal Colleges that are fully accredited and operated by American Indian tribes in the United States offer Native American language and culture courses.

Q.what are the reasons that the adults learn an additional language more quickly than children.3

Older students can make quick progress. Singleton (2001) has also shown that early second-language learners are neither more successful nor more efficient in acquiring a second language. The same has been found in foreign-language learning contexts because children have more time to practice and develop their bilingual competence, and because often the social and educational settings in which they participate are more conducive to authentic practice, it turns out they often appear to be more successful in developing their bilingualism. Yet, in formal educational settings, adults, able to use their metalinguistic skills in a first language more efficiently, learn more quickly than younger learners.

Q.Phonological language borrowing. (3)



It is one type of the language borrowing. Language borrowing can also be phonological, that is related to the sounds of the language from one language to the other.

OR

Phonological Borrowing: a situation where a language adopts a new sound from another language that it is in contact with.

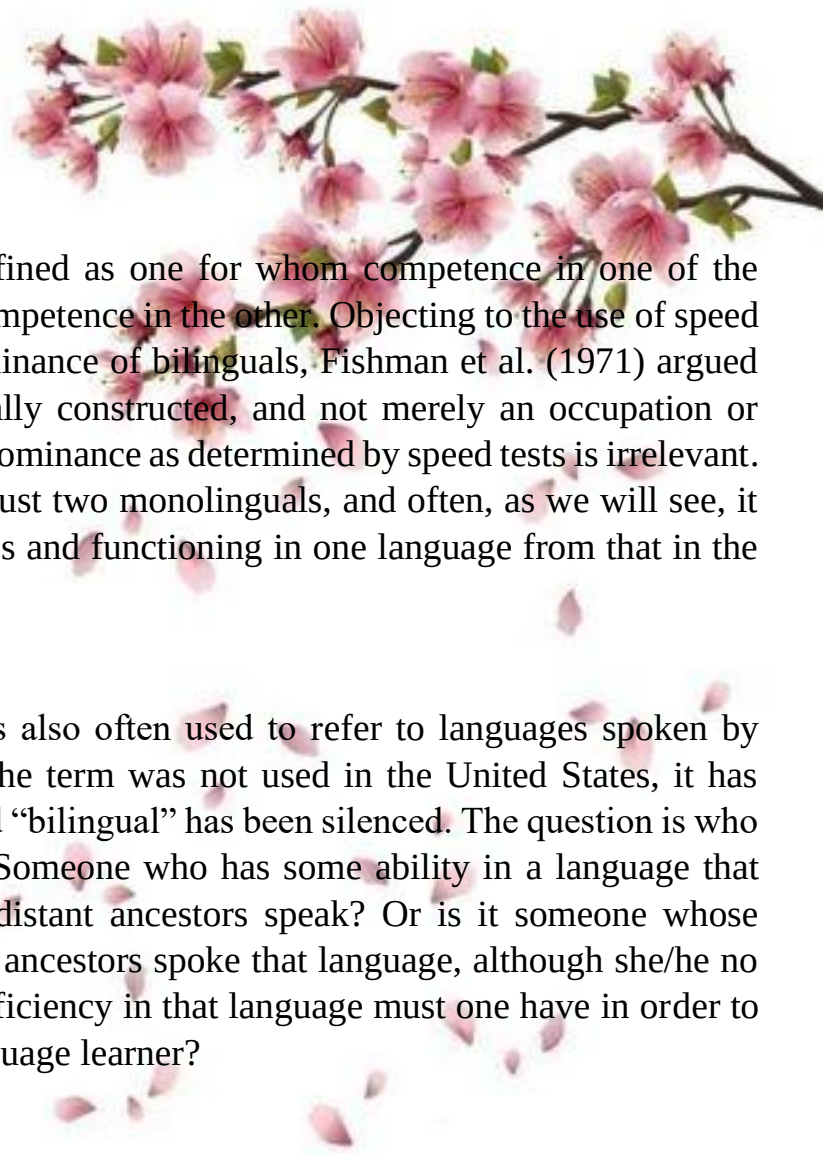
Example: the “3” sound was introduced into the English language from French through borrowing of words like leisure and measure.

Q.Subtractive Bilingualism.

When monoglossic ideologies persist, monolingualism and monolingual schools are the norm, it is generally believed that children who speak a language other than that of the state should be encouraged to abandon that language. In this model, the student speaks a first language and a second one is added while the first is subtracted. The result is a child speaks only the second language. This bilingualism is characterized by increasing loss of linguistic features of the first language. Additive bilingualism for prestigious groups and the elite has always been additive, a model under which the second language is added to the person’s repertoire and the two languages are maintained. Despite the benefits of this approach, bilingualism here is still seen from the perspective of a monolingual norm.

Q: Recursive Bilingualism

The concept is used in cases when bilingualism is developed after the language practices of a community have been suppressed. When a community engages in efforts to revitalize their language practices, this is called recursive bilingualism as, for example in the case of the Maori of Aotearoa/ New Zealand, individuals are not starting from scratch and adding simply a second language. The ancestral language continues to be used in traditional ceremonies and by many in the community to different degrees. Therefore, bilingualism is not simply additive, but recursive. These bilingual individuals and communities often move back and forth along a bilingual continuum and in so doing, the language is not added whole, but in bits and pieces, as ancestral language practices are reconstituted for new functions. Indeed in these cases bilingualism is recursive because it reaches back to the bits and pieces of an ancestral language as it is reconstituted for new functions and as it gains momentum to thrust itself forward towards the future.



Q.language dominance

The dominant bilingual was defined as one for whom competence in one of the languages was superior to the competence in the other. Objecting to the use of speed tests to determine language dominance of bilinguals, Fishman et al. (1971) argued that where bilingualism is socially constructed, and not merely an occupation or hobby, the concept of language dominance as determined by speed tests is irrelevant. Bilinguals are much more than just two monolinguals, and often, as we will see, it is difficult to disentangle abilities and functioning in one language from that in the other

Q.Heritage language (5)

The term “heritage language” is also often used to refer to languages spoken by ethnic communities. Although the term was not used in the United States, it has recently gained favor as the word “bilingual” has been silenced. The question is who is a heritage-language learner? Someone who has some ability in a language that their parents, grandparents, or distant ancestors speak? Or is it someone whose parents, grandparents, or distant ancestors spoke that language, although she/he no longer does? And then what proficiency in that language must one have in order to be categorized as a heritage-language learner?

Concept

- Language spoken by ethnic communities.
- Popularity based on Canadian policy in 1960 for elementary schools.
- In US becoming popular with the demonizing of the term bilingual.
- Revitalization of language encouraged

Two Questions:

- 1.What proficiency in that language must one haveOr
- 2.What connotations does the term ‘heritage’ have?

These questions arises when we talk about heritage.

The concept

- Ancient and old but focus future.

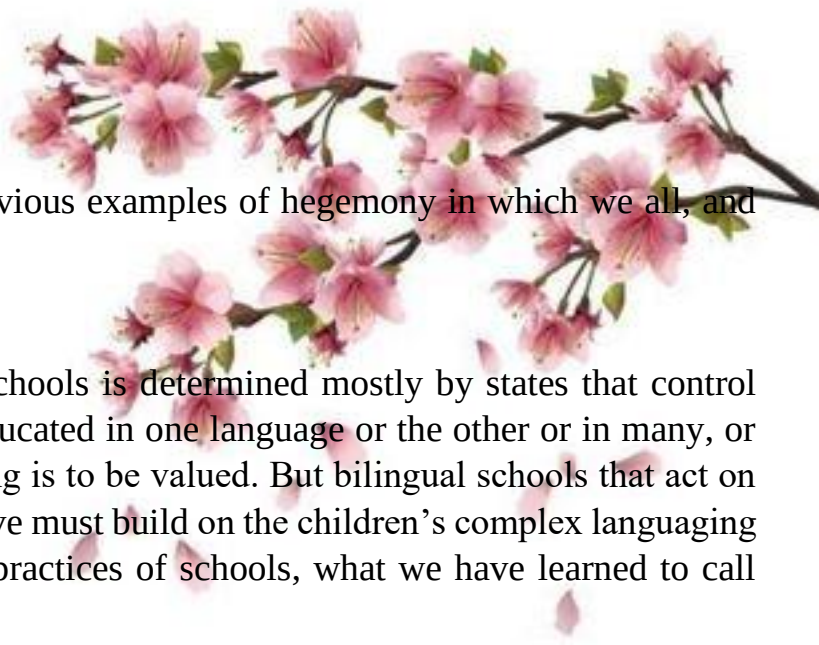


- The emphasis on sole focus on heritage language must not exclude translanguaging possibilities.

Q. Define hegemony of language with example (5)

What is hegemony? The obsession with language categories, as well as the school's insistence in using only "the standard" to teach, learn, and assess, has then much to do with the concept of governmentality as proposed by Foucault (1991). Foucault focuses on how language practices "regulate" the ways in which language is used, and establish language hierarchies in which some languages, or some ways of using language, are more valued than others. This has to be interpreted within the framework of "hegemony" developed by Antonio Gramsci (1971) which explains how people acquiesce to invisible cultural power. Erikson (1996: 45) defines "hegemonic practices" as "routine actions and unexamined beliefs that are consonant with the actions, entirely without malevolent intent, that nonetheless systematically limit the life chances of members of stigmatized groups." Our routine language practices become "regulatory" mechanisms which unconsciously create categories of exclusion. Our discursive practices are one of the most obvious examples of hegemony in which we all, and especially educators, participate. Concept of hegemony, which is an extremely important, understanding, and how languages work. So what is hegemony is actually an assumption, which goes unchallenged because it is seen as common sense to never, ever question it, and all your arguments are based on that assumption. For instance this hegemony of English, or the prestige attached to English, thinking that only by knowing English language you can achieve a certain kind of status is the hegemony of English and So what is hegemony practices? It is everyday routine things that we do, routine talk that we do, or own discursive practices, and through them somehow legitimize what is going on, they affirm, and confirm what we everyone believes and forces us to accept this invisible power of culture, so it becomes so embedded in your culture that you don't actually challenge it anymore.

Example of hegemony of language For instance, hardly ever in Punjab you believe that Punjabi can be used as an academic language. It won't even question it, and very recently from an established school system there was this circular, in which they said, No one is allowed to use foul language, nine, Punjabi. So this is, again, a hegemonic idea. So language itself and how we speak about it. Our discursive



practices are one of the most obvious examples of hegemony in which we all, and especially educators, participate.

Q.Languaging in schools (3)

The language use in bilingual schools is determined mostly by states that control whether all children are to be educated in one language or the other or in many, or whether the children's languaging is to be valued. But bilingual schools that act on their potential to be transformative must build on the children's complex languaging to also develop the languaging practices of schools, what we have learned to call "standard academic language."

Q.short note on invisible Bilingualism.

Technology-enabled communication facilitates complex languaging practices that question monolingual realities. In bilingual speech, Lüdi (2003: 175) tells us, "Rules and norms are activated that overlap single languages and govern the harmonic, i.e. the 'grammatical' mixing of elements from different languages." What we have is multiple discursive practices or translanguaging. Despite the ability of bilinguals to translanguage, monolinguals are often oblivious to the presence of these bilingual practices (what Hélot, 2003, 2006, 2007 calls "invisible bilingualism"), or dismissive of their significance, with any difference in language practices often evaluated as a deficiency. These practices are in no way deficient, they simply reflect greater choices, a wider range of expression than each monolingual separately can call upon, and convey not only linguistic knowledge, but also combined cultural knowledge that comes to bear upon language use.

Q. Transnationalism (3)

Sociopolitical and socioeconomic changes have also resulted in dramatic population shifts and this immigration is characterized by transnationalism; that is, the ability to go back and forth to the country of origin, aided by improved transportation and technology. All these population movements bring about changes in language use, and amplify the presence of bilingualism, as other languages are also becoming important.

Q. write an explanatory notes with examples on pidgin and creole

Pidgins are defined by linguists as languages that come into being in contact situations, and are used by speakers with different language backgrounds to communicate, typically to trade or in plantation contexts. For us, they are just



another manifestation of how people language. Structurally speaking, pidgins are simplified; that is, they have little morphology and limited syntax, and they are not mutually intelligible with the language from which they derive their lexicon. Pidgins are always learned as second languages. In contrast, when pidgins become nativized and standardized, and adopted as the language of the home by a majority of the population, they are known as creoles. Creoles are said to be lexically and structurally complex, and are learned as first languages. Michel De Graff (1999) has argued against what he calls “creole exceptionalism,” that is, the idea that because creoles had no time to incorporate the parent- languages’ complex grammars, and because they are so new, creoles are similar to each other and different from other languages. In fact, if you compare the evolution and structures of English with that of Creoles, De Graff argues, there is no way to distinguish one from the other. In this reconstituted view, a creole may just be the partial settling of language practices under certain social circumstances.

Q. why do we want to teach a standardized language to our students in schools(3)

Schools pay a lot of attention to the teaching of language itself. Language is central in school because it is also the means through which teaching and learning occurs. Often times, however, this use of language in school, as controlled by the teacher and limited to what is considered “the standard,” as such it has little to do with encouraging children’s intellectual inquiry and creativity or with children’s languaging. The ability to use the standard language is a developmental goal of education, but restricting the languaging of students may severely limit their communicative and intellectual potential, and their possibilities of becoming better educated.

Q. Linguicism.

It is a term coined by Skutab-Kangas (2000) and it is similar to linguistic racism. The discrimination between language in term of power and the status that goes to its speakers is called linguicism. It is an arbitrary linguistic hierarchy (Imposed hierarchies)

- Language of the powerful
- Language of the majority or the language of the minority elite. There are many examples worldwide of using language to limit educational and occupational opportunities to those who speak the privileged language. This actually accentuates



social differences, since they can only be acquired through formal education and not everyone has access to school. Pennycook (2002) has also shown how language use in education may create “docile” people, able to cooperate in their own exploitation. Colonization is the example of linguicism.

Q. Define language and three ways of language.

Language as an essential component of inter-cultural education in order to encourage understanding between different population groups and ensure respect for fundamental rights. **People use language for**

1. Expression

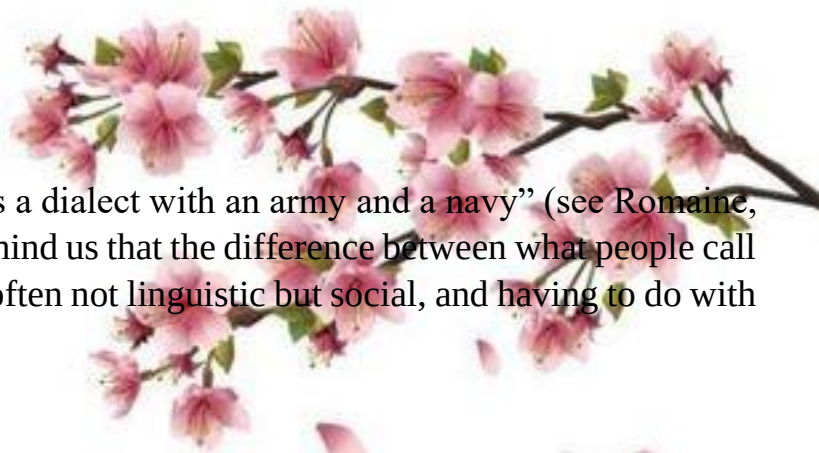
2. Interaction

3. Reference

People use language for many purposes. They use language for expression, for interaction, and to express reference (Ager, 2001) but language practices can also be turned into something about which people, communities, and states have opinions and feelings (Ager, 2001) that is, language practices or languaging also act as a symbol system (Fishman, 1996); they can become symbolic of the speech community itself or of sacredness. Thus, languaging practices are codified into languages. For example, Urdu has become an important identity marker for Pakistanis after independence. Some languages have acquired a sanctity dimension for example Arabic for Muslims.

Q. what is dialect? Three types of Dialect?

For linguists, the term “**dialect**” is a neutral term used for variants of a specific language. Romaine (1994) defines dialect as “a subordinate variety of a language,” and refers to regional dialects, associated with a place, social dialects, associated with social class, and historical dialects referring to ancestors of present language varieties. There are also ethnic dialects spoken by ethnolinguistic groups. However, people often reserve the term “dialect” for languages or ways of using language that are socially stigmatized. For example, many people think that what they speak to friends and families in informal settings is a dialect, and what they speak in school is a language. When states want to ensure that people who engage in certain languaging practices remain oppressed, these practices are often referred to as dialects; although when the speakers of these so called dialects achieve political power, they are then often designated as languages. Max Weinreich is often quoted



as having said that “a language is a dialect with an army and a navy” (see Romaine, 1994: 12). This serves well to remind us that the difference between what people call a dialect and a language is most often not linguistic but social, and having to do with the power of its speakers.

Types of Dialect:

1.Social Dialect:

The kind of language that upper class people speak

2.Place Dialect:

Dialect related to ethnicity. People belonging to a certain region and speaking the same language might speak different varieties or different dialects of the same language.

3. Historical Dialect:

A dialect which has been used in a time which has passed away but over time this dialect is no more in use.

Q.How languages spread by the help of technologies (3)

The forms of language undergo constant changes due to social changes, emergence of new technologies and contact with other languages. New forms apply to old functions, as when a new expression is used by teenagers; in the same way old forms apply to new functions, as for example; the English word save in using a computer; or new forms can be developed for new functions (e.g. new terminology).

Q: How does language attrition perpetuate in the society (5)

“Language Valorization to major languages and ignorance to minor languages are the cause of language perpetuate”. As certain functions are valorized more than others, e.g. the cognitive function in school. If different varieties of language, e.g. accents, are present in the society, one variety may be valued to the detriment of others. A similar situation happens in the case of multilingual societies. One or more languages will be highly valued, while others will be devalorized. At the individual level a similar mechanism operates. To the extent that the adults around the child value the use of language for certain functions. The extreme importance of valorization is evidenced at all societal and individual levels. At the societal level, if a minority language is not valorized and used as a tool for education, language attrition and language shift are likely to occur. At individual level, the positive



valorization of a language will trigger off a motivational process for learning and using those aspects of language.

Q.Name two kind of language system.

The fact that bilingual children mix elements from their two languages is often interpreted as evidence for a unitary underlying language system. Fred Genesee's article examines the empirical basis for such a claim. He points out the serious methodological problems of some of the studies, and re-analyses selected case studies. He also offers new data from speech perception studies, arguing that young bilingual children are able to differentiate two languages from the earliest stages of bilingual development and that they can use their two languages in contextually sensitive ways. He points out that code-mixing itself is not good evidence for the unitary system argument. In fact, children's mixing may be related to mixed input by parents. Genesee calls for more serious research on the possible role of parental input in the form of mixed utterances. Jürgen M. Meisel addresses the 'one system or two' question by focusing on the syntactic and morphological development of bilingual children however, instead of simply providing further evidence in support of the separate development argument, Meisel raises the theoretically more interesting question of whether the human language making capacity could allow the bilingual individual to separate the two simultaneously acquired grammatical systems from early on, without going through a phase of confusion. Through a longitudinal study of simultaneous French-German bilingual children, he argues that grammatical processing is in fact possible much earlier than is usually assumed on the basis of analyses of monolingual child language. He further speculates that this early development of grammatical processing ability could be explained by the fact that the task of acquiring two language systems simultaneously requires more attention to problems of form, rather than relying on semantic-pragmatic strategies alone.

Q: Needs of twenty-first century in bilingual

In the twenty-first century, our complex multilingual and multimodal global communicative networks often reflect much more than two separate monolingual codes. Bilingual education that is adaptive, able to expand and contract, as the communicative situations shift and as the terrain changes, is precisely what all children in the twenty-first century need. What is important for bilingual education, then, may not always be the full language parts in isolation, but the quality and the effectiveness of the integrated sum. One plus one does not always equal two. The



language practices of bilinguals are interrelated and expand in different directions to include the different communicative contexts in which they exist. What is needed today are practices firmly rooted in the multilingual and multimodal language and literacy practices of children in schools of the twenty-first century, practices that would be informed by a vision starting from the sum: an integrated plural vision. Educating children bilingually enables language practices that, like the banyan trees, build on each other in multiple ways and directions – up, out, down, across – but yet rooted in the terrain and realities from which they emerge.

Q. Translanguaging vs translation (5)

Translanguaging, another way in which a more dynamic bilingualism can be nurtured in students, is by following bilingual curriculum that uses the methodology that Cen Williams has called “translanguaging.” According to Baker (2001), translanguaging, developed specifically as a curriculum arrangement by Cen Williams in Wales, involves the hearing, signing, or reading of lessons in one language, and the development of the work (the oral discussion, the writing of passages, the development of projects and experiments) in another language. That is, the input and output are deliberately in different languages

Translation:

The aim is to understand how people communicate multilingually across diverse languages and cultures. We define 'translation' as the negotiation of meaning using different modes (spoken/written/visual/gestural) where speakers have different proficiencies in a range of languages and varieties. When speakers do not share a common language they may rely on translation by professionals, friends or family, or by digital means. Such practices occur in 'translation zones', and are at the cutting edge of translation and negotiation. We view 'cultures' not as fixed sets of practices essential to ethnic groups, but rather as processes which change and which may be negotiable.

Q. Three advantages of translanguaging by Cen William? (5)

Four advantage or benefit of translanguaging:

1. Deeper understanding of the subject matter

- Space for learner agency or co- construction of knowledge
- Building on existing knowledge



2. Development of competence In the weaker language

- Maximizing learning opportunities with scaffolding
- Transitions to build confidence and reduce anxiety

3. Home-school cooperation

- Maximizing support systems
- Increasing relevance

4. Integration of fluent speakers with early language learners

- Developing communities of learning - supporting each other
- Both languages encouraged

Q. Code switching. (3)

Code switching is the process of going back and forth from one language to the other. Code-switching may be of at least two types. The first type, intra-sentential, refers to instances in which the switch occurs within the boundaries of a clause or a sentence or intra-sentential between two or more sentences. Far from being a sign of inadequacy or sloppy language usage or lack of knowledge, it has been shown that code-switching is a sophisticated linguistic skill and a characteristic of the speech of fluent bilinguals

Code switching:

Collin Baker specifies a difference between one word or a few words being changed in a sentence (labeled “code mixing”) and code switching, which he defines as having “generally been used to describe any switch within the course of a single conversation, whether at word or sentence level or at the level of blocks of speech” (Baker, 2011, p. 107).

Q. Write an example of a classroom where code-switching is effective (5)

Example#1:

Chinese in US English class rooms:

- Encouraging use of Chinese in English writing classes
- Developed writing skills faster
- Cross-linguistic analysis



- Difference in strategies

Detail of above points:

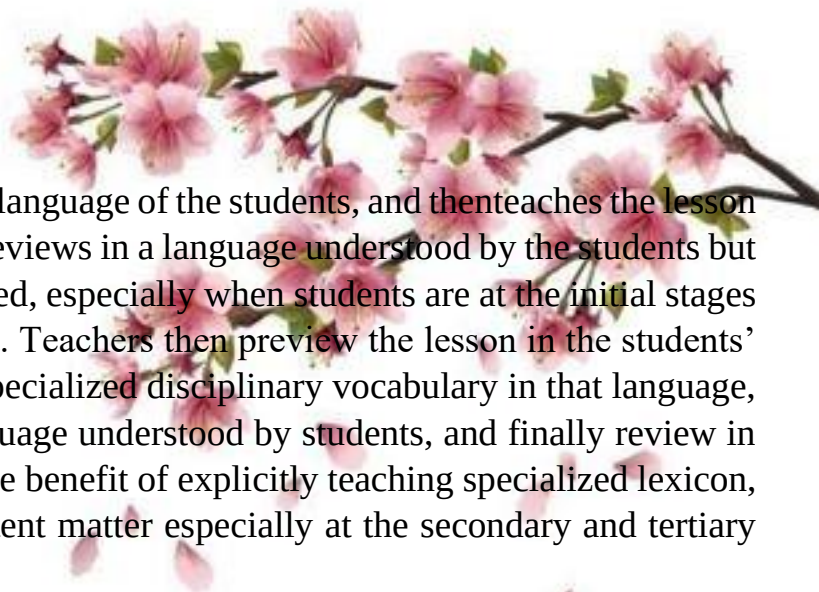
You have this Chinese classroom in a US state, and research actually showed that when the Chinese students were allowed to use Chinese rather encouraged to use Chinese when learning how to write in English language that writing process itself was expedited, they were able to learn writings English language writing skills faster. And they also showed a lot of cross linguistic analysis, because constantly as we discussed earlier they were able to make comparisons between their Chinese writing skills and English language writing skills, and the demands of that language style itself. So they were also able to by doing this, talk about strategies that they used in when writing in Chinese, and the strategies that are demanded of them when they are going on to read, or to write in English language. So the way the language is structured, the way the verbs are used on the verb endings are used in English language, and does not happen in the Chinese language, and by talking about it clearly. The Chinese students were able to pick this up faster.

Example #2

Teachers who are members of bilingual communities will use their two languages in classrooms in ways similar to those in which they use them in the community. The randomness of those switches is not always appropriate in educational settings where the development of academic language is necessary. Random code-switching is often the way in which bilingual teachers use languages in transitional bilingual education classrooms. That is, they use two languages to teach the same content concurrently with frequent shifting back and forth between the two languages within a lesson, and with little thought as to why they are doing so. This way of using code-switching in the classroom is often referred to as Concurrent Translation, signaling that teachers go back and forth randomly. Sometimes code-switching responds to what Zentella (1997: 19) has called “following the child”, as the teacher switches languages to imitate the language which the child has used. Yet, other times, teachers code-switch to engage emotionally with the child or take disciplinary actions.

Q. Difference between preview and view (3)

When the language chosen to preview, view, and review varies, it can be considered an instance of convergent multiple arrangements. Throughout the world, this is a popular arrangement at the secondary level. The instructor gives the gist, the



preview, most often in the home language of the students, and then teaches the lesson in a second language, and then reviews in a language understood by the students but sometimes this process is reversed, especially when students are at the initial stages of the emergent bilingual period. Teachers then preview the lesson in the students' second language, giving them specialized disciplinary vocabulary in that language, then teach the lesson in the language understood by students, and finally review in the second language. This has the benefit of explicitly teaching specialized lexicon, important in understanding content matter especially at the secondary and tertiary levels

Q: Distinguish between translanguaging and code switching according to Baker.

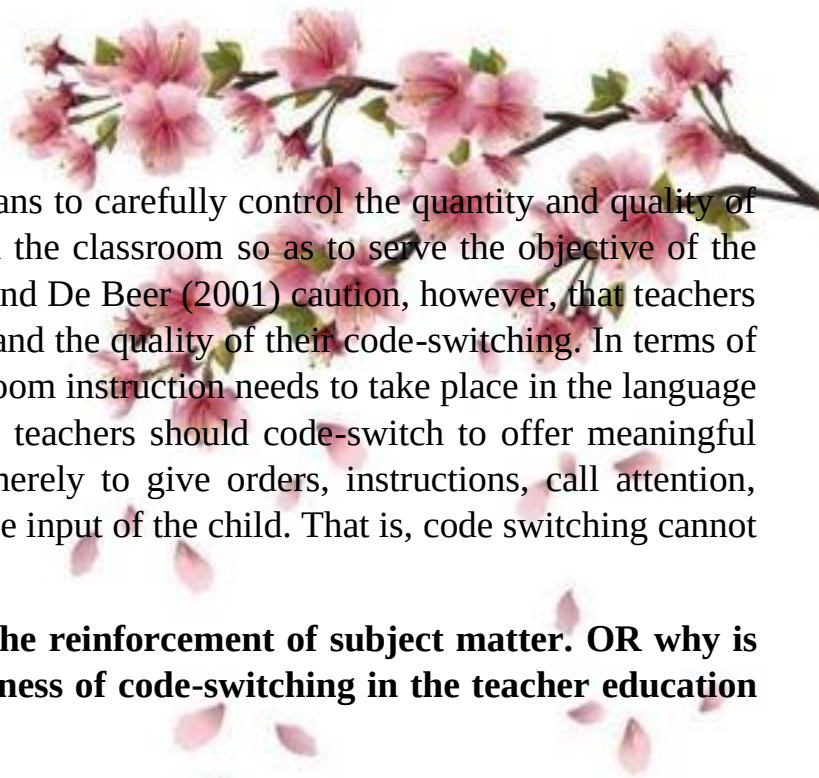
Code-switching is seen as the process of changing two languages, whereas translanguaging is about “the speakers' construction that creates the complete language repertoire” **Translanguaging:**

Translanguaging, another way in which a more dynamic bilingualism can be nurtured in students, is by following bilingual curriculum that uses the methodology that Cen Williams has called “translanguaging.” According to Baker (2001), translanguaging, developed specifically as a curriculum arrangement by Cen Williams in Wales, involves the hearing, signing, or reading of lessons in one language, and the development of the work (the oral discussion, the writing of passages, the development of projects and experiments) in another language. That is, the input and output are deliberately in different languages.

Translanguaging is dynamic bilingual programme:

- Two languages used simultaneously in the same class
- Hearing, reading and or signing of lesson in one language
- Development of work in the other
- Another language to discuss and write or projects
- Deliberate arrangement in the curriculum
- Development of both languages – aim

Q. Responsible code switching



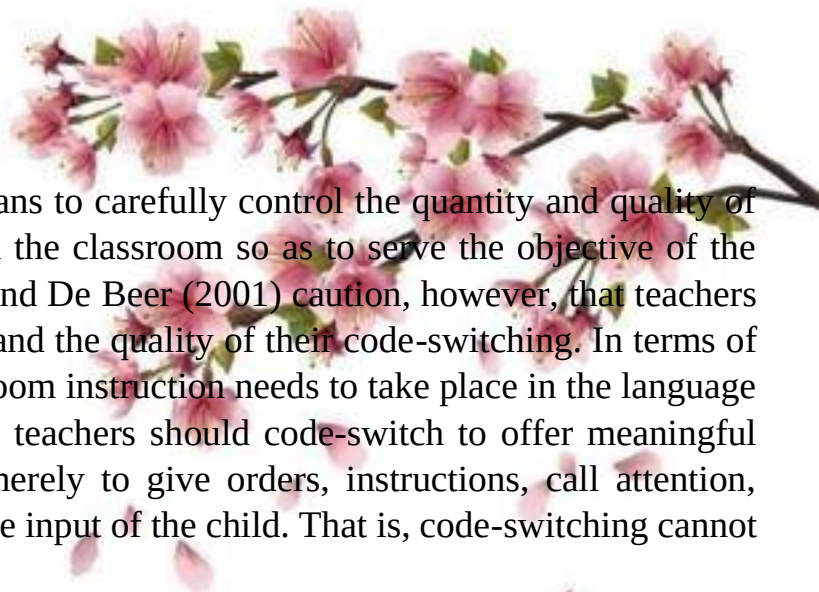
Responsible code switching means to carefully control the quantity and quality of switching between languages in the classroom so as to serve the objective of the lesson. Van der Walt, Mabule, and De Beer (2001) caution, however, that teachers must monitor both the quantity and the quality of their code-switching. In terms of quantity, the main part of classroom instruction needs to take place in the language being developed. As to quality, teachers should code-switch to offer meaningful instructional support and not merely to give orders, instructions, call attention, discipline, or follow the language input of the child. That is, code switching cannot be simply random.

Q. Role of code-switching in the reinforcement of subject matter. OR why is there need for creating awareness of code-switching in the teacher education progress .

Responsible Code-Switching:

The negative associations with code-switching in the classroom have been increasingly questioned by scholars. For example, Ferguson (2003) says that the evidence suggests that “CS [code-switching] is a useful resource for mitigating the difficulties of learning through a foreign language. There is a good case, then, for moderating official hostility to CS, for acknowledging its prevalence and, indeed, for incorporating awareness of CS as a resource into teacher education curricula.” It has been found that teachers use code-switching to focus or regain students’ attention and to clarify or reinforce lesson material. Code-switching is a scaffolding technique in bilingual classrooms, making the additional language more comprehensible. It is not necessarily code-switching that is bad, but rather how language is used, and by whom, that shapes the students’ perceived value of the two languages in a bilingual classroom affect the outcome. Van der Walt, Mabule, and De Beer (2001) have coined a term “responsible code-switching.” Van der Walt, Mabule, and De Beer (2001) argue that code-switching is a way of strengthening the connection to the students’ home language and of providing meaningful input. The students’ home language, as we have been arguing is an important resource to solve problems in the additional language and to develop that language (Cummins, 1979; 2000). Thus, it stands to reason that banishing the students’ home language when instruction is taking place in a language they do not know well (even for half a day) is not appropriate.

Q. Monitoring quantity and quality of code switching.



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Too much of code-switching:

- May lead to delay in the learning of an additional language.
- Over reliance in the use of one language.
- Confusion in terms of understanding.
- May undermine the purpose of gaining expertise in a given language.

Too little of Code-Switching:

- Disengaging
- Defeats the purpose of bilingual education
- Responsible thinking about the use and benefit of code-switching.

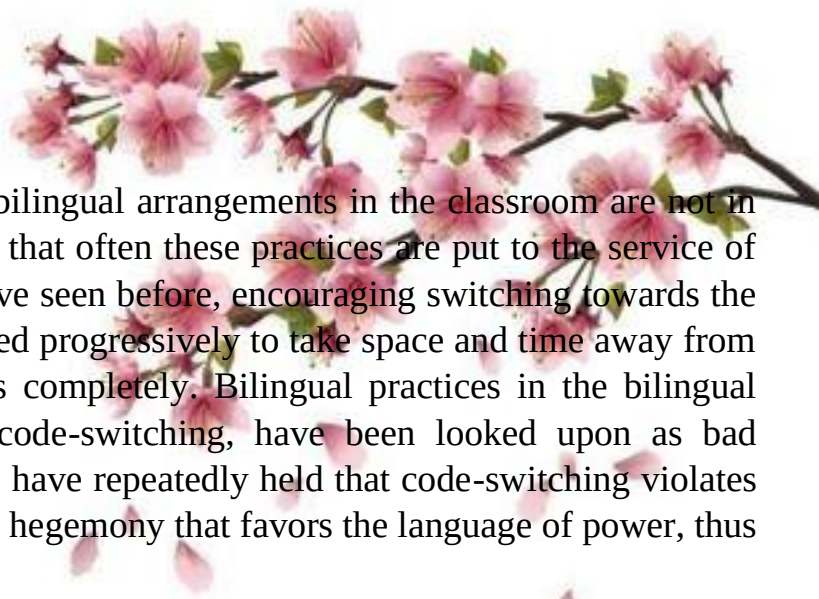
Q: Flexible multiplicity .

Flexible multiplicity is another form that bilingual education programs might takes. It is usage of the multiple languages flexibly throughout the educational program.

Recursive language practices:

- Bilingual practices are recursive
- Can be built upon
- Code switching considered bad –planned
- Bilingual practices need to be encouraged - home languages
- Prepare for academic and non-academic discourse

The conception of bilingualism as linear and solely as $1 + 1 = 2$ rejects any bilingual languaging which violates traditional concepts of language as an autonomous



system. We argue that flexible bilingual arrangements in the classroom are not in themselves bad. The problem is that often these practices are put to the service of the majority language, as we have seen before, encouraging switching towards the dominant language only, and used progressively to take space and time away from the language until it disappears completely. Bilingual practices in the bilingual classrooms, and in particular code-switching, have been looked upon as bad practice. Scholars and educators have repeatedly held that code-switching violates diglossia and creates a linguistic hegemony that favors the language of power, thus leading to language shift.

Q-Micro and macro alteration

Duverger (2005) makes a useful distinction between micro-alternation and macro-alternation in bilingual education. Macro alternation refers to a certain number of courses, or of lessons which form a didactic unity, taught primarily in one or the other language and where the use of a given language across the curriculum is clearly identifiable and highly visible. This does not mean that the “other” language may never occur in the slot where one language is the preferred mode. The “other language” could occur as complementary information, additions, openings, or extensions of subject matter, but should be limited and carefully controlled by the teacher. This type of alternation is useful in cases where one wants to underline the bilingual nature of a program. Micro-alternation occurs when a course, which is predominantly handled in one language, makes use of elements of the other language. This type of code-switching is a reflection of what occurs naturally in bilingual communities and has long been considered taboo by the language-teaching profession and, yet, Duverger tells us that if controlled and understood by teachers it can help de-dramatize the concentration on language “purity” which often reduces learners to silence. As Duverger (2005) says, “Macro-alternation is programmed, institutionalized, demanding; micro-alternation adds suppleness, flexibility, and efficiency. The combination of the two is subtle.”

Q: Flexible arrangement.

What is important is to understand that it is not a flexible bilingual arrangement itself that leads to language shift or language maintenance or addition, but the uses to which these practices are put. Bilingual education programs which have monolingualism as a goal encourage language mixing in ways that lead to language shift but bilingual education programs which build on translanguaging practices ensure the functional interrelationship of the languages used in school.



Language shift and maintenance:

- Not related to bilingual arrangements but the goal of the programme
- Functional inter- relationship between the languages to be maintained

Related to the Issue of:

- The role of L1 in L2 teaching and learning
- L1 scaffolding for the learning of the other language
- Second language learning problematic if L1 considered of lower status

Q. Flexible convergent

Flexible Convergent

Flexible language use that drives towards convergence, that is, whose goal is to encourage language shift, is used in subtractive bilingual frameworks, and generally follows two patterns:

- Random code-switching

- Monoliterate bilingualism

Q. How do monolingual communities switch their styles?

It is well recognized that bilingual communities code-switch as a way to achieve their full range of expression. That is, just as monolingual communities style-switch from more formal to more informal registers, bilingual communities code-switch because they have at their disposal more than one code. As we have seen before, at times bilingual communities code-switch for specific communicative reasons or social motivations (Gumperz, 1982), but at other times code-switching is simply a discourse style (Zentella, 1997), often signaling multiple identities or membership in many cultures that the languages index (Myers-Scotton, 2006). Indeed, bilinguals who code-switch have also been shown to have a high degree of cognitive control over various languages simultaneously (Zentella, 1997).

Q. Monoliterate Bilingualism

This bilingual arrangement requires that literacy be reserved only for the dominant language. The local vernacular is never read or written; it is merely used to support understandings and instruction. An example of this monoliterate bilingual arrangement is the one used in Mali. During the first stages and until fifth grade, when French becomes the medium of instruction, the thirteen national languages,



Bambara and Fulfulde being the most prevalent, are used to encourage dialogue and storytelling, with French only used in written expression (Traore, 2001).

Q. Flexible bilingualism in classroom (3)

Flexible bilingual arrangements in the classroom are not in themselves bad. The problem is that often these practices are put to the service of the majority language, as we have seen before, encouraging switching towards the dominant language only, and used progressively to take space and time away from the language until it disappears completely. Bilingual practices in the bilingual classrooms, and in particular code-switching, have been looked upon as bad practice. Scholars and educators have repeatedly held that code-switching violates diglossia and creates a linguistic hegemony that favors the language of power, thus leading to language shift.

Q. What happened in a teacher determine separation classroom of bilingual education program (3)

Here one teacher speaks only one language, and the second teacher solely speaks the other language. There are different manifestations of teacher-determined language-structuring:

Two Teachers, Two Classrooms

This is the strictest of this teacher-determined separation. It combines teacher-determined with time determined separation. Here one teacher teaches in one language at some time of day, while at the same time another teacher teaches in the other language. At an alternate time, the two teachers switch children. For example, in a bilingual Chinese–Italian school, teacher A teaches group A in Chinese which consists of twenty five children. At the same time, teacher B teaches another twenty-five children in Italian, group B. At some determined time (afternoon, the next day, and the next week) teacher A teaches group B in Chinese, whereas teacher B teaches group A in Italian. This arrangement is known as side- by-side and requires, at the primary level, two teachers who are bilingual but who in effect function as a monolingual teacher.

Two Teachers, One Classroom

Another arrangement is to have two teachers within one classroom who speak only one language to the students but are able to facilitate their learning in the other language because they themselves are bilingual. This is the usual arrangement when



there are enough resources, especially in early childhood. The advantage of this is that it provides language separation, while always ensuring that children are supported in the language they know best.

Q. Place- determined (5)

This refers to situations where one particular classroom is used for instruction in one language, and a different classroom for instruction in the other. This is the structure used in many European classrooms and also in many Canadian immersion bilingual education programs. In each room, only one language is displayed and used by the teacher and the children. Most secondary schools also use this arrangement. In some classrooms, the left side is for one language, the right for the other. In others, different colors are used for the two languages. For example, in the United States it is quite common, as we have said, for teachers to write in blue for English and red for Spanish of multilingualism in general.

Q. Teacher rule (Teacher determined) in bilingual education.

Teacher-determined:

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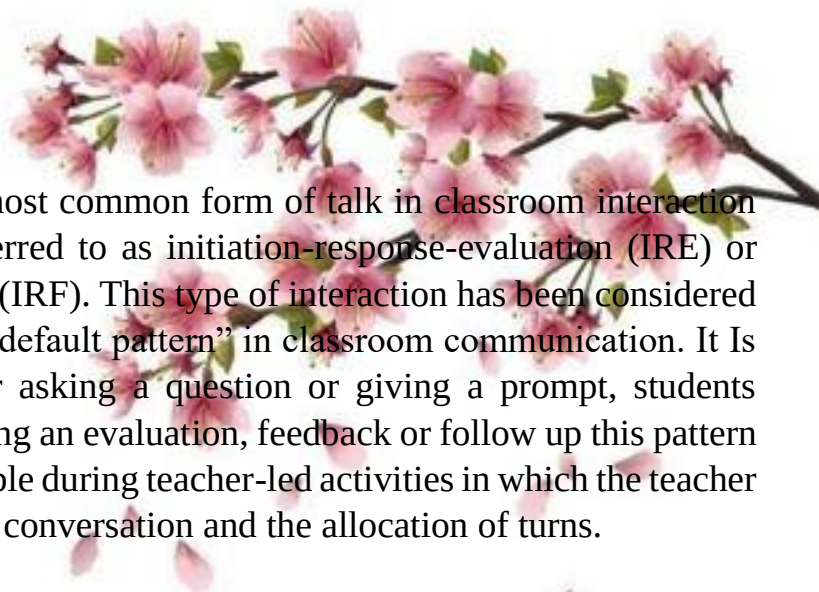
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Q: What is mean by IRE? (3)



The most documented and most common form of talk in classroom interaction is a three-turn sequence referred to as initiation-response-evaluation (IRE) or initiation-response-feedback (IRF). This type of interaction has been considered somewhat of a norm or the “default pattern” in classroom communication. It is characterized by the teacher asking a question or giving a prompt, students response and the teacher giving an evaluation, feedback or follow up this pattern of interaction is most noticeable during teacher-led activities in which the teacher controls the both the topic of conversation and the allocation of turns.

Q.What are metalinguistic skills?

Metalinguistic as a field of study examines the relation between language and culture. Metalinguistic skills are strategies that are applied, either consciously or automatically, to an oral or written linguistic interaction to allow one to think about language and a linguistic message, to analyze a message, and to control language processing within the communicative culture (Bialystok, 1986).

Q.Threshold hypothesis

Students whose academic proficiency in the language of instruction is relatively weak will tend to fall further and further behind unless the instruction they receive enables them to comprehend the input (both written and oral) and participate academically in class. In learning a second language, a certain minimum ‘threshold’ level of proficiency must be reached in that language before the learner can benefit from the use of the language as a medium of instruction in school. (Cummings, 2001)

Q.Three basic steps of bilingual education.

- 1.Transitional Bilingual Education.
- 2.Two-Way or Dual Language Immersion Bilingual Education.
3. Another type of dual language program teaches students using the following steps: 1) Teachers instruct students in a second language but are able to understand students when they must ask questions in their native languages.

Q. Three factors involved in shaping ideologies.



1. Attitudes
2. Beliefs
3. Values

Q. Name the models of bilingualism? (3)

1. Subtractive Bilingualism;
2. Additive Bilingualism;
3. Recursive Bilingualism;
4. Dynamic Bilingualism;
5. Plurilingualism

Q. Terms language.

The method of human communication, either spoken or written, consisting of the use of words in a structured and conventional way. People use language for

- Expression: expressing themselves
- Interaction: Interaction with others

Q. Difference between learning and Acquisition .

Acquisition:

Children acquire language through a subconscious process during which they are unaware of grammatical rules. This happens especially when they acquire their first language.

Language learning, on the other hand, is the result of direct instruction in the rules of language.

Q. Benefits of code switching

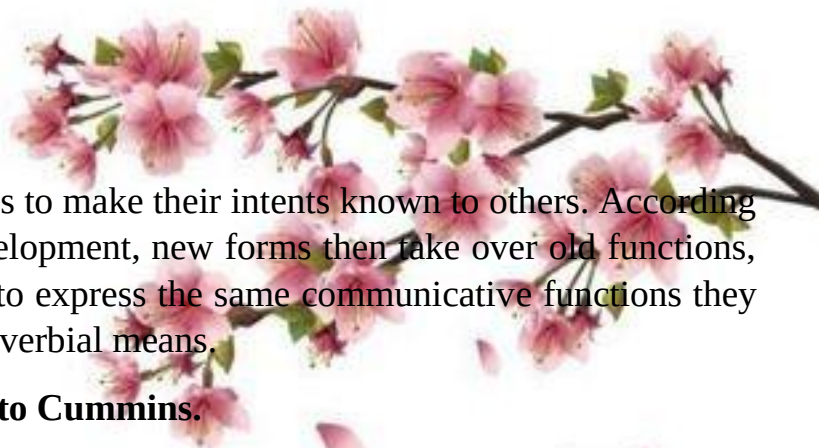
According to Metila (2009) code switching helps to improve class participation by inducing a relaxed class atmosphere that allows students to perform much better. Abad(2005) contends with Metila that code switching manages to lower the effective filter and this consequently establishes rapport and creates an atmosphere of informality in the classroom between the teachers and students aiding in a more democratic and critical learning environment for the students.



More so, Lee (2006) in his research affirms that the discourse (code switching) used by the students outside the classroom should be allowed inside the classroom discussion process because it helps the students contribute in the discussions process and bridges any social and cultural gap. Jacobson (1990) argues that socio-psychological factors play a significant role in code switching in a bilingual classroom. He further argues, that code switching helps the speakers to express themselves and present pragmatic meanings. In essence, using code switching in the classroom fosters a positive ambience according to Metila (2009). Bautista (1996) concurs with Metila that code switching can transform the atmosphere of a classroom from being too formal to informal thereby allowing collaborations among the students in group works and also aids in the interactions and discussions in the classroom. According to Bautista (1996) code switching is the simplified strategy that students with poor English language proficiency use. Whilst Metila (2009) argues that the use of code switching in a bilingual classroom fulfills a pedagogical function when it makes a challenging subject matter comprehensible to students. In other words, the use of code switching in a bilingual classroom seems beneficial because it helps in explaining abstract concepts and in defining difficult terms to students. This indicates that code switching makes explanations easy to understand for the students by the teachers. Code switching helps students to communicate easily with one another and in the classroom, it helps students to understand lesson contents, helping the students seek clarification concerning some topics. It also helps the students to bridge communication gaps in the classroom. Lastly the use of code switching in a bilingual classroom aids in the modification of classroom ambience.

Q.what do you understand by language development as a choice. (5)

Language development is a process starting early in human life. Infants start without knowing a language, yet by 10 months, babies can distinguish speech sounds and engage in babbling. Some research has shown that the earliest learning begins in utero when the fetus starts to recognize the sounds and speech patterns of its mother's voice and differentiate them from other sounds after birth. Typically, children develop receptive language abilities before their verbal or expressive language develops. Receptive language is the internal processing and understanding of language. As receptive language continues to increase, expressive language begins to slowly develop. Usually, productive language is considered to begin with a stage of pre-verbal communication in which infants



use gestures and vocalizations to make their intents known to others. According to a general principle of development, new forms then take over old functions, so that children learn words to express the same communicative functions they had already expressed by proverbial means.

Q. Social justice according to Cummins.

Social justice is the most important principle of bilingual education pedagogy since bilingual teaching combines two or more languages and cultures. It is thus important for equity between the two languages and content to be established, and for students of all linguistic and cultural backgrounds to be recognized as knowers (Freire, 1970).

Schechter and Cummins (2003:9) have said:

“In contexts of cultural, linguistic, or economic diversity, where social inequality inevitably exists, these interactions are never neutral: they either challenge the operation of coercive relations of power in the wider society or they reinforce those power relations.” This principle values the strength of bilingualism and bilingual students. It enables the creation of a learning context which is not threatening to the students’ identities but that builds multiplicities of language uses and linguistic identities, while maintaining academic rigor and upholding high expectations. A cultural and linguistically responsive pedagogy falls within this principle (Au, 2006; Villegas and Lucas, 2001). Another important element of this principle relates to advocating for assessment that is valid for bilingual students. We comment on each of the four dimensions of the social justice principle below, as we describe instructional practices that are appropriate for each category.

Q. Equity encourages equal opportunities to participate. Explain.

when we talk about social justice equity. It also means that the classroom should provide equal opportunities to all to participate. For instance, if we are using this immersion program in certain degree or not yet what profession to talk about content in a specific language or ask questions in a given specific language, then essentially the opportunity to participate is curtailed.

Q. preview/view:

When the language chosen to preview, view, and review varies, it can be considered an instance of convergent multiple arrangements. Throughout the



world, this is a popular arrangement at the secondary level. The instructor gives the gist, the preview, most often in the home language of the students, and then teaches the lesson in a second language, and then reviews in a language understood by the students but sometimes this process is reversed, especially when students are at the initial stages of the emergent bilingual period. Teachers then preview the lesson in the students' second language, giving them specialized disciplinary vocabulary in that language, then teach the lesson in the language understood by students, and finally review in the second language. This has the benefit of explicitly teaching specialized lexicon, important in understanding content matter especially at the secondary and tertiary levels.

Q. Attitude of local Languages at workplace.

Language based marginalization results from devaluation of the linguistic capital that individuals possess, while making it difficult for them to access the valued linguistic capital. This obstructs wider participation and access and forces individuals to give up their career goals. Even when they are fortunate enough to be in a career of their choice, it impedes their upward career growth and promotions or an unleashing of the potential they have at their workplace. Not being given the opportunity to learn a language that is highly valued in positions of power, while devaluing of the language individuals have, infests them with a sense of shame in their own identity, a sense of unwarranted and unaccounted for sense of guilt, as if they have lesser talent than others. However, all this is only a manifestation of 'symbolic violence' a misrecognition that what they encounter is only a constructed arrangement that forces them in a position of disadvantage; and it is not their own lack of talent. If a dominant language, which is, used almost everywhere, for example in medical literature accompanying medicines or in air travel arrangements, banks and other offices is not accessible, it leaves individuals with a sense of vulnerability and alienation with their surroundings. They are socially excluded and marginalized because their agency to make informed choices is crippled.

Q. Three periods of sociohistorical and sociolinguistics bilingualism.

1. 1968
2. 1990
3. 2001

Q. Five types of bilingualism



Early bilingualism –

Late bilingualism

Additive bilingualism

subtractive bilingualism –

Passive bilingualism

Q. Three types of bilingual teaching methods OR What's the Bilingual Method?

There are three widely-recognized methods of teaching a language:

1. The Grammar-Translation Method

2. The Direct Method

3. The Bilingual Method

Often referred to as the traditional method, the grammar-translation method is derived from the classical approach to teaching Latin and ancient Greek. This method places a strong emphasis on the grammatical structure of language and is heavy on rote memorization for learning. Lessons are undertaken in the students' native language (L1) and involve extensive translation to and from the students' target language (L2).

The direct method has been strongly favored among language teachers for many years now. The direct method utilizes L2, employing visual aids and role-playing extensively, and encourages students to use an inductive approach to discover the rules of the target language. It attempts to simulate the conditions through which we acquire our native language and, therefore, heavily discourages the use of the mother tongue.

Our focus here is on the third method: the bilingual method. This method was developed by C.J.

Man From Nowhere

Dodson in the 1960s and 1970s. Dodson set out to make improvements to the audio-visual method

(which has much in common with the direct method outlined above). The bilingual method makes use

of the traditional three P's: presentation, practice, production. The three P's are the three main stages

of any language lesson. First, you present material. Then you all practice together and students are

expected to produce something with their new knowledge.

The bilingual method advocates the use of the L1 in learning the L2. It's distinct from the grammartranslation method in that it places a strong emphasis on oral language. Later in this post we'll

examine in more detail how these principles can benefit learning in your classroom.

